Pairing Proofs and Polynomial Ring Toolkit

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Abstract. Elliptic curve pairings are fundamental to modern zero-knowledge proof systems, including Groth16, PLONK, and KZG polynomial commitments. In resource-constrained execution environments (Ethereum VM, BitVM, blockchain smart contracts) where computation is metered by gas fees, and in arithmetized computation systems (R1CS, Plonkish, Cairo AIR) where each computational step imposes significant prover overhead, the cost of pairing computation remains a practical bottleneck. We present a public-coin interactive proof system that consolidates the Miller loop iterations and final exponentiation into a single polynomial relation. The relation can then be verified as polynomial identities greatly reducing the pairing costs.
We present a full implementation in gnark [Cona]—the industry-standard framework for arithmetized circuit development—as a reusable polynomial ring toolkit in the `emulated` package. Benchmarked on a Groth16 verification simulation (2 fixed-point pairings + 1 full pairing + 1 $\mathbb{F}_{p^{12}}$ multiplication) on BN254, our gnark implementation achieves a **39% reduction in SCS constraints** (1,890,771 → 1,158,194), a **60% reduction in commitments** (739,198 → 295,946), and a ∼**42%** reduction in compile-time memory and up to **52%** in solver memory. These improvements hold across both SCS and R1CS constraint systems and enable practical pairing verification in recursive proof systems and resource-constrained environments.

Keywords: Elliptic curve pairings · Zero-knowledge proofs · Polynomial identity testing · Blockchain verification · Recursive proofs.

1 Introduction

Blockchain technology continues to mature with improving scalability and infrastructure. However, privacy remains a significant barrier to entry for many users and applications. Zero-knowledge proofs (ZKPs) have emerged as a powerful solution to this challenge.

1.1 Motivation

Elliptic curve pairings represent fundamental building blocks for numerous cryptographic systems including Groth16[Gro16], PLONK[GWC19], BLS signature schemes[BGW+22], and KZG polynomial commitment schemes[KZG10].

However, **pairings are computationally intensive**. This creates critical bottlenecks in two important deployment contexts:

1. **Resource-constrained virtual machines** (Ethereum VM, BitVM, ZKVMs): Computation is metered — each operation incurs gas costs. A single pairing verification requiring thousands of field operations becomes economically prohibitive during peak network congestion.

2. **Arithmetized computation systems** (R1CS [GGPR13], Plonkish [GWC19], Cairo AIR [GPR21]): Each operation must be represented algebraically, adding significant prover overhead beyond native execution costs.

In such contexts, an efficient proof system for pairing correctness can replace expensive native execution inside the constrained environment.

1.2 Our Contribution

We present a public-coin interactive proof system for verifying pairing computations that consolidates verification into unified polynomial relationships under the Schwartz-Zippel lemma. By treating complete Miller loop iterations as single polynomial relationships rather than sequences of individual extension field operations [Fel23], our approach achieves:

- **39% reduction** in SCS constraints (1,890,771 → 1,158,194 for BN254 Groth16 simulation)
- **60% reduction** in commitments (739,198 → 295,946)
- **∼42% reduction** in compile-time memory and up to **52%** in solver memory

Our key insight is that instead of verifying individual field operations separately, we can verify entire Miller loop iterations as single polynomial identities. This consolidation dramatically reduces both the number of modular operations required and the communication overhead from intermediate commitments.

As a reusable artefact of independent interest, we also contribute a **polynomial ring toolkit** for gnark's emulated arithmetic package. The toolkit packages the two-round interactive proof system into a clean API: a single `NewPolyRingCheck` call registers a modulus, `MulPolyRings` submits multiplications with deferred verification, and `performDeferredRingChecks` closes the circuit with two `api.Commit` challenges. Atop this, the `PolyRingAccumulator` provides a higher-level interface for building product chains: factors are enqueued via `Mul`, squarings via `Sqr`, and the accumulated product is evaluated lazily through `Eval`, with optional automatic degree-bounding to keep intermediate products manageable.

2 Background

2.1 Pairing Computation

An elliptic curve pairing is a non-degenerate bilinear map $e : \mathbb{G}_1 \times \mathbb{G}_2 \to \mathbb{G}_T$, where $\mathbb{G}_1$ and $\mathbb{G}_2$ are groups of points on elliptic curves over finite fields, and $\mathbb{G}_T$ is a multiplicative group in an extension field. For practical cryptographic applications, we require that this map be efficiently computable. We will focus on the optimal ate pairing [BGM+10] over Barreto-Naehrig (BN) curves, which is widely used due to its efficiency. We will specifically use the Ethereum's BN254 curve, defined over a 254-bit prime field $\mathbb{F}_q$, with groups $\mathbb{G}_1, \mathbb{G}_2$ of order r and target group $\mathbb{G}_T$ contained in the 12th extension field $\mathbb{F}_{q^{12}}$.

The computation of an optimal ate pairing—the focus of our implementation—consists of two primary phases:

1. **Miller loop**: The core iterative computation that evaluates line functions at pairs of points from $\mathbb{G}_1$ and $\mathbb{G}_2$, accumulating intermediate results to produce a value in $\mathbb{F}_{q^{12}}$.
2. **Final Exponentiation**: This step raises the Miller loop output to the power $(q^{12} - 1)/r$, where r is the order of the groups, ensuring the result lies in the correct subgroup $\mathbb{G}_T$.

While both phases present optimization opportunities, the constraint-based verification of these computations introduces unique challenges and possibilities that differ significantly from native implementations.

Algorithm 1 Optimal Ate pairing over Barreto-Naehrig curves [BGM+10]

Input: $P \in \mathbb{G}_1, Q \in \mathbb{G}_2$
Output: $a_{opt}(Q, P)$

Write $s = 6t + 2 = \sum_{i=0}^{L-1} s_i 2^i$ where $s_i \in \{-1, 0, 1\}$ and $s_L = 1$
$T \leftarrow Q, f \leftarrow 1$
for $i = L - 2$ to 0 **do**
    $f \leftarrow f^2 \cdot l_{T,T}(P)$
    $T \leftarrow [2]T$
    if $s_i = 1$ **then**
        $f \leftarrow f \cdot l_{T,Q}(P)$
        $T \leftarrow T + Q$
    end if
    if $s_i = -1$ **then**
        $f \leftarrow f \cdot l_{T,-Q}(P)$
        $T \leftarrow T - Q$
    end if
end for
$Q_1 \leftarrow \pi_p(Q), Q_2 \leftarrow \pi_p^2(Q)$
$f \leftarrow f \cdot l_{T,Q_1}(P), T \leftarrow T + Q_1$
$f \leftarrow f \cdot l_{T,-Q_2}(P), T \leftarrow T - Q_2$
$f \leftarrow f^{(p^{12}-1)/r}$
return f

2.2 Schwartz-Zippel lemma

The Schwartz-Zippel lemma (or more precisely, the Demillo-Lipton-Schwartz-Zippel lemma [DL78, Sch79, Zip79, Sch80]) provides a probabilistic method for testing polynomial identities. The lemma states that for a non-zero polynomial $P(x_1, x_2, \ldots, x_n)$ of total degree d over a finite field $\mathbb{F}$, when evaluated at uniformly random field elements, the probability that P evaluates to zero is at most $d/|\mathbb{F}|$.

This probabilistic bound becomes negligible for cryptographically sized fields where $d \ll |\mathbb{F}|$, making it practical to verify polynomial identities by evaluation instead of coefficient-wise operations.

2.3 Computation Models

We implement and benchmark our toolkit in gnark [Cona], the industry-standard Go library for arithmetized circuit development, targeting both SCS (Sparse Constraint System, the native Plonkish backend) and R1CS constraint systems. We map each field multiplication to a constraint (denoted by **C**) to maintain compatibility with the R1CS model used in established literature. In R1CS [Gro16], prover complexity is dominated by multiplication gates while additions are free. To synchronize our theoretical analysis with the benchmarks provided by El Housni [Hou23], we define our cost metric based on field multiplications.

2.3.1 R1CS Cost Model

We measure computational cost in terms of *constraints* (denoted by **C**), representing the fundamental unit of work in Rank-1 constraint systems. One constraint corresponds to one multiplication gate.

Basic Field Operations in $\mathbb{F}_q$:

- **Addition/Subtraction:** Free

- **Multiplication:** One constraint (1C)
- **Division/Inversion:** One multiplication + one equality check

Commitment Overhead: Beyond constraint costs, we account for *calldata* or *commitment overhead*—the number of field elements the prover must commit to (via Fiat-Shamir hashing in non-interactive proofs). For blockchain deployments, this overhead directly impacts transaction costs and is often the dominant factor.

2.3.2 Cost Model Comparison

Operations that are traditionally expensive (inversions, divisions) become cheap in constraint systems when computed via witnesses. This inverts traditional optimization priorities: we can afford inversions to save multiplications, enabling affine coordinate systems and other techniques impractical in native implementations.

Recognizing and exploiting these unique computational properties is essential for unlocking hidden performance potential. Youssef El Housni's pioneering work **Pairings in Rank-1 Constraint Systems** [Hou23] represents, to our knowledge, the first systematic exploration of these optimization opportunities, providing a breakthrough in the practicality of recursive proving by thoughtfully leveraging the distinctive cost model inherent to constraint-based systems.

3 Related Work

The landscape of efficient pairing verification in constraint systems has evolved through three key contributions that our work directly builds upon.

1. El Housni's **Pairings in Rank-1 Constraint Systems** [Hou23] established the theoretical framework for optimizing pairings in arithmetized environments, introducing efficient Miller loop formulas in affine coordinates and sparse line function representations. This work inverts the usual cost model: inversions become cheap (2C) while multiplications remain the dominant cost.

2. Feltroidprime [Fel23] introduced polynomial identity testing for $\mathbb{F}_{q^{12}}$ arithmetic via the Schwartz-Zippel lemma. Each multiplication $A \cdot B$ is expressed as $A(x) \cdot B(x) = Q(x) \cdot P_{12}(x) + R(x)$ and verified at a single random point, with the quotients Q batched via random linear combination. Our work applies the same polynomial framework but at a coarser granularity: entire Miller loop steps rather than individual multiplications, eliminating intermediate remainder commitments entirely.

3. Novakovic and Eagen's **On Proving Pairings** [NE24] showed that final exponentiation can be replaced by a residue witness check, reducing final exponentiation cost by over 85% for BN254. We integrate their residue witness c directly into our polynomial step equations (Section 4.2.2), unifying the Miller loop and final exponentiation into the same polynomial verification framework.

4 Pairing Operations as Polynomials

Algorithm 2 gives the pairing computation combining El Housni's R1CS optimizations [Hou23] with Novakovic-Eagen's residue witness technique [NE24]. The 27th root of unity W scales the Miller loop output f to be a cubic residue (see [NE24] §4.3); if f is not already a cubic residue, multiplying by W^w, $w \in \{1, 2\}$ corrects this.

Our contribution is to express each step of this algorithm as a single multi-operand polynomial product verified via the Schwartz-Zippel lemma, rather than as a sequence of individual binary multiplications as in [Fel23].

Algorithm 2 Optimal Ate pairing with Residue witness check

Input: $P \in \mathbb{G}_1, Q \in \mathbb{G}_2, c \in \mathbb{F}_{q^{12}}, w \in \{0, 1, 2\}$
Internal $W, W^2 \in \mathbb{F}_{q^{12}}$ ▷ W is 27th root of unity
Output: $a_{opt}(Q, P)$

Write $s = 6t + 2 = \sum_{i=0}^{L-1} s_i 2^i$ where $s_i \in \{-1, 0, 1\}$ and $s_L = 1$
$c^{-1} \leftarrow 1/c$ ▷ Inverse Residue witness
$f \leftarrow c^{-1}$ ▷ Initialize with inverse residue witness
$T \leftarrow Q$ ▷ T_i for each pair for multi-pairing
Every operation involving T, P or Q is repeated for T_i, P_i and Q_i for multi-pairing.

for $i = L - 2$ to 0 **do**
  $f \leftarrow f^2$
  $f \leftarrow f \cdot l_{T,T}(P)$ ▷ Repeat for T_i, P_i
  $T \leftarrow [2]T$ ▷ Repeat for T_i
  if $s_i = 1$ **then**
    $f \leftarrow f \cdot c^{-1}$ ▷ Residue witness
    $f \leftarrow f \cdot l_{T,Q}(P)$ ▷ Repeat for T_i, Q_i, P_i
    $T \leftarrow T + Q$ ▷ Repeat for T_i, Q_i
  else if $s_i = -1$ **then**
    $f \leftarrow f \cdot c$ ▷ Residue witness
    $f \leftarrow f \cdot l_{T,-Q}(P)$ ▷ Repeat for $T_i, -Q_i, P_i$
    $T \leftarrow T - Q$ ▷ Repeat for $T_i, -Q_i$
  end if
end for

$Q_1 \leftarrow \pi_p(Q), Q_2 \leftarrow \pi_p^2(Q)$ ▷ Repeat for Q_{1i}, T_i
$f \leftarrow f \cdot l_{T,Q_1}(P)$ ▷ Repeat for Q_{1i}, T_i, P_i
$T \leftarrow T + Q_1$ ▷ Repeat for Q_{1i}, T_i
$f \leftarrow f \cdot l_{T,-Q_2(Q)}(P)$ ▷ Repeat for Q_i, T_i, P_i
if $w = 1$ **then**
  $f \leftarrow f \cdot W$
else if $w = 2$ **then**
  $f \leftarrow f \cdot W^2$
end if
$f \leftarrow f \cdot c^{-q} \cdot c^{q^2} \cdot c^{-q^3}$ ▷ Uses Frobenius maps, Negative exponents use c^{-1}

return f

4.1 Comparative Analysis

We compare the two schemes for a 3-pair Miller loop zero-bit step (the most common case in BN254's NAF[DHM04] representation of $s = 6t + 2$). Here $F \in \mathbb{F}_{q^{12}}$ is the accumulator, $L_i \in \text{Sparse}_{01379}$ are the three doubling line functions, $R \in \mathbb{F}_{q^{12}}$ is the updated accumulator, and Q is the quotient polynomial. Sparse_{01379} denotes the subspace of $\mathbb{F}_{q^{12}}$ elements whose only nonzero coefficients are at degrees $0, 1, 3, 7, 9$—the form that BN254 line functions naturally take [Hou23], reducing their evaluation cost from 12C to 4C.

4.1.1 Previous scheme

Adapting [Fel23] to lines 6–7 of Algorithm 2 for a 3-pair Miller loop gives:

$$F(x) \cdot F(x) \stackrel{?}{=} Q_1(x) \cdot P_{12}(x) + T_1(x)$$
$$T_1(x) \cdot L_1(x) \stackrel{?}{=} Q_2(x) \cdot P_{12}(x) + T_2(x)$$
$$T_2(x) \cdot L_2(x) \stackrel{?}{=} Q_3(x) \cdot P_{12}(x) + T_3(x)$$
$$T_3(x) \cdot L_3(x) \stackrel{?}{=} Q(x) \cdot P_{12}(x) + R(x)$$

Evaluating F, T_1–T_3, R costs 12C each and L_1–L_3 cost 4C each; all four remainder polynomials require commitment. **Total: 76C and 48 $\mathbb{F}_q$ commitments** (4×12).

4.1.2 Our scheme

Our scheme consolidates lines 6–7 into a single polynomial identity:

$$F(x) \cdot F(x) \cdot L_1(x) \cdot L_2(x) \cdot L_3(x) \stackrel{?}{=} Q(x) \cdot P_{12}(x) + R(x)$$

By eliminating intermediate T_* polynomials, only R requires commitment. **Total: 41C and 12 $\mathbb{F}_q$ commitments** ($2 \times 12\text{C} + 3 \times 4\text{C} + 5\text{C}$).

This results in **46% fewer constraints** and a **75% reduction in commitments**. When verifying ZK proofs on-chain, commitment savings are often more critical than constraint savings, due to the calldata costs associated with transmitting polynomial hints.

4.1.3 Performance Comparison

Table 1 compares the computational costs and commitment overhead between the schemes for a single 0-bit Miller loop operation with 3 pairs.

Table 1: 3-Pair Miller loop 0-bit constraints comparison

Scheme	Constraints	$\mathbb{F}_q$ Commitments	Improvement
[Hou23]	132C	—	Baseline
[Fel23]	76C*	48	42%
Our scheme	**41C***	**12**	**69%**

[Hou23]: 1 square (36C) + 3 sparse mul (3×30C) = 132C
[Fel23]: 5 evals (5×12C) + 3 line evals (3×4C) + 4 muls (4×1C) = 76C
Our scheme: 2 evals (2×12C) + 3 line evals (3×4C) + 5C (muls + RLC) = 41C
*Costs exclude Fiat-Shamir commitment overhead

4.2 Operation Polynomials

Our implementation uses different polynomials for different bits in the Miller loop. Let us walk through a 3-pairing setup which Inversions used widely for Groth16 verification. We will describe the polynomials for zero bits, non-zero bits and correction step.

4.2.1 Miller loop: Zero Bit Equation

As seen in 4.1.2 for zero bit operations (line 6 and 7 with three $l_{T,T}(P)$ lines in Algorithm 2), the verification equation is:

$$F^2(x) \cdot L_1(x) \cdot L_2(x) \cdot L_3(x) = R(x) + Q(x) \cdot P_{12}(x) \tag{1}$$

Table 2: Zero bit operation polynomial components

Polynomial	**Description**	**Degree**	**Coefficients**
$F \in \mathbb{F}_{q^{12}}$	Miller loop accumulator	$11 \times 2 = 22$	12
$L_1, L_2, L_3 \in \text{Sparse}_{01379}$	The line functions	$9 \times 3 = 27$	$4 \times 3 = 12$
$R \in \mathbb{F}_{q^{12}}$	Remainder, The result	11	12
Total constraints	36C Evals, 4C Muls and 1C RLC		**41**
Q *(Amortized See 5.1)*	$\deg(\text{LHS}) - \deg(P_{12}) + 1$	38	39

4.2.2 Miller loop: Non-Zero Bit Equation

For non-zero bit operations(lines 10, 11, 14, 15 with three pairs of lines in Algorithm 2), the Miller loop performs both doubling and addition steps. So for each pair we have two Sparse_{01379} lines. The verification equation becomes:

$$F^2(x) \cdot W(x) \cdot L_{\text{d1}}(x) \cdot L_{\text{d2}}(x) \cdot L_{\text{d3}}(x) \cdot L_{\text{a1}}(x) \cdot L_{\text{a2}}(x) \cdot L_{\text{a3}}(x) = R(x) + Q(x) \cdot P_{12}(x) \tag{2}$$

Table 3: Non-zero bit operation polynomial components

Polynomial	**Description**	**Degree**	**Coefficients**
$F \in \mathbb{F}_{q^{12}}$	Miller loop accumulator	$11 \times 2 = 22$	12
$L_{\text{d1}}, L_{\text{d2}}, L_{\text{d3}} \in \text{Sparse}_{01379}$	Doubling line functions	$9 \times 3 = 27$	$4 \times 3 = 12$
$L_{\text{a1}}, L_{\text{a2}}, L_{\text{a3}} \in \text{Sparse}_{01379}$	Addition line functions	$9 \times 3 = 27$	$4 \times 3 = 12$
W or $W^{-1} \in \mathbb{F}_{q^{12}}$	Residue witness	11	12
$R \in \mathbb{F}_{q^{12}}$	Remainder, The result	11	12
Total constraints	60C Evals, 8C Muls and 1C RLC		**69**
Q *(Amortized See 5.1)*	$\deg(\text{LHS}) - \deg(P_{12}) + 1$	76	77

The residue witness W encapsulates the equivalence class relationship established by Novakovic and Eagen's final exponentiation elimination. The inverse of W is used for negative bits, this just changes the coefficients the equation remains the same.

4.2.3 Miller loop: Frobenius mapping Equation

The correction step finalizes the Miller loop by incorporating the Frobenius endomorphism corrections (lines 20 and 22 in Algorithm 2). Again, we have two Sparse_{01379} lines for each pair, for π_p and $-\pi_p^2$ mappings, without any squaring of the accumulator. The verification equation becomes:

$$F(x) \cdot L_{1\pi}(x) \cdot L_{2\pi}(x) \cdot L_{3\pi}(x) \cdot L_{1\pi^2}(x) \cdot L_{2\pi^2}(x) \cdot L_{3\pi^2}(x) = R(x) + Q(x) \cdot P_{12}(x) \quad (3)$$

Table 4: Correction step polynomial components

Polynomial	**Description**	**Degree**	**Coefficients**
$F \in \mathbb{F}_{q^{12}}$	Miller loop accumulator	11	12
$L_{1\pi}, L_{2\pi}, L_{3\pi} \in \text{Sparse}_{01379}$	π_p correction lines	$9 \times 3 = 27$	$4 \times 3 = 12$
$L_{1\pi^2}, L_{2\pi^2}, L_{3\pi^2} \in \text{Sparse}_{01379}$	$-\pi_p^2$ correction lines	$9 \times 3 = 27$	$4 \times 3 = 12$
$R \in \mathbb{F}_{q^{12}}$	Remainder, The result	11	12
Total constraints	48C Evals, 6C Muls and 1C RLC		**55**
Q *(Amortized See 5.1)*	$\deg(\text{LHS}) - \deg(P_{12}) + 1$	54	55

4.2.4 Final Exponentiation Equation

The final exponentiation check is handled as described in [NE24]. The equation handles the cubic scale factor multiplication, and **Frobenius component** $(q - q^2 + q^3)$ of the final exponentation (lines 24, 26 and 28 in Algorithm 2). The verification equation looks like:

$$F(x) \cdot c^{-q}(x) \cdot c^{q^2}(x) \cdot c^{-q^3}(x) \cdot W^w(x) = 1 + Q(x) \cdot P_{12}(x) \quad (4)$$

where $w \in \{0, 1, 2\}$ determines the cubic root of unity scaling factor, and the Frobenius mappings are computed using the residue witness c and its inverse and provided as input. Cubic root is sparse element with just 2 coefficients the degree ranging from 8 to 10 because of positioning of the coefficients. Our R is now 1 for a successful proof verification.

Table 5: Final exponentiation polynomial components

Polynomial	**Description**	**Degree**	**Coefficients**
$F \in \mathbb{F}_{q^{12}}$	Final Miller loop result	11	12
$c^{-q} \in \mathbb{F}_{q^{12}}$	Residue witness Frobenius $-q$	11	12
$c^{q^2} \in \mathbb{F}_{q^{12}}$	Residue witness Frobenius q^2	11	12
$c^{-q^3} \in \mathbb{F}_{q^{12}}$	Residue witness Frobenius $-q^3$	11	12
$W^w \in \mathbb{F}_{q^{12}}$	Cubic scale factor	10	2
$R = 1$	Unity (constant)	0	1
Total constraints	51C Evals, 4C Muls and 1C RLC		**56**
Q *(Amortized See 5.1)*	$\deg(\text{LHS}) - \deg(P_{12}) + 1$	43	44

With this we have all the polynomials we need for verifying entire pairing operation. Next we will look into high level overview of pairing verification via an interactive oracle proof.

4.3 Security

Each verification equation takes the form $P = \prod_i A_i(x) - Q(x) \cdot P_{12}(x) - R(x)$ where $\deg(P) < 2^8$.[1] By the Schwartz-Zippel lemma (Section 2.2):

Soundness: $\delta_s \leq d/|\mathbb{F}_q| < 2^8/2^{254} = 2^{-246}$ for BN254.

Completeness: An honest prover always produces $P(x) = 0$ identically, so the verifier always accepts. Euclidean division guarantees unique Q, R with $\deg(R) < \deg(P_{12}) = 12$.

[1] For k-pair pairings, $\deg(P) \approx 88 + 18(k-3)$, well below 2^8 for all practical k. This bound can be extended to 2^{10} with negligible soundness impact.

5 Full Pairing Proof with Quotient Batching

We now combine the polynomial equations from Section 4.2 into a complete two-round public-coin interactive proof, further reducing verification cost by batching all quotients into a single accumulated polynomial.

5.1 Batching Polynomial Identity Testing

All n polynomial equations from Section 4.2 are batched into a single verification. The prover commits to remainders $\{R_i\}_{i=0}^{n-1}$ and receives challenge z. Using z, the prover forms the accumulated quotient $Q_{\text{acc}} = \sum_{i=0}^{n-1} z^i \cdot Q_i$. The verifier then samples a second challenge point c and checks:

$$\sum_{i=0}^{n-1} z^i \cdot [A_i(c) \cdot B_i(c) \cdots X_i(c) - R_i(c)] = Q_{\text{acc}}(c) \cdot P_{12}(c) \tag{5}$$

This reduces n polynomial verifications (degrees 38–76, see Tables 2–5) to a single evaluation of a degree-76 polynomial.

5.2 Prover's Algorithms

The prover computes quotients Q_i and remainders R_i for each equation in Section 4.2. For each step, it calls PolyMulDiv (Algorithm 3), which multiplies the input polynomials and performs standard Euclidean division by the irreducible P_{12}. After receiving challenge z, the prover forms $Q_{\text{acc}} = \sum_i z^i Q_i$ and sends $\mathcal{R} = \{R_i\}$ and Q_{acc} to the verifier. The full prover procedure is given in Algorithm 4.

Algorithm 3 PolyMulDiv: Multiply polynomials and divide by P_{12}

Input: $P_1, \ldots, P_n \in \mathbb{F}_q[x]$; Divisor $P_{12} \in \mathbb{F}_q[x]$
Output: Q, R s.t. $\prod P_i = Q \cdot P_{12} + R$, $\deg(R) < \deg(P_{12})$
1: $R \leftarrow \prod_{i=1}^{n} P_i$ ▷ Polynomial product
2: Perform Euclidean division of R by P_{12} to get (Q, R)
3: **return** (Q, R)

5.3 Verifier's Algorithms

The verifier receives $P \in \mathbb{G}_1$, $Q \in \mathbb{G}_2$, residue witness c [NE24], the W (27th root of unity), the remainder array $\mathcal{R}$, and Q_{acc} from the prover. Using challenge z from the first round and a freshly sampled x, it mirrors the prover's pairing loop while evaluating each polynomial at x via Algorithm 5, accumulating the RLC e_{acc}. The final check is Equation 5. The full verifier is given in Algorithm 6.

Algorithm 4 Pairing Prover: Preparing polynomials

Input: $P \in \mathbb{G}_1, Q \in \mathbb{G}_2, c \in \mathbb{F}_{q^{12}}, w \in \{0, 1, 2\}$
Internal: $W, W^2 \in \mathbb{F}_{q^{12}}$ ▷ W is 27th root of unity
Output: Arrays $\mathcal{Q}, \mathcal{R}$ of quotients and remainders
Write $s = 6t + 2 = \sum_{i=0}^{L-1} s_i 2^i$ where $s_i \in \{-1, 0, 1\}$ and $s_L = 1$
$c^{-1} \leftarrow 1/c$ ▷ Inverse Residue witness
$f \leftarrow c^{-1}$ ▷ Initialize with inverse residue witness
$T \leftarrow Q$ ▷ T_i for each pair for multi-pairing
Every operation involving T, P or Q is repeated for T_i, P_i and Q_i for multi-pairing.

Miller loop bits
for $i = L - 2$ to 0 **do**
  $L_{\text{dbl}} \leftarrow l_{T,T}(P)$, $T \leftarrow [2]T$
  if $s_i = 0$ **then**
    $Q, R \leftarrow PolyMulDiv(f, f, L_{\text{dbl}})$ ▷ Algorithm 3, add L_{*i} for each P_i, Q_i
  else if $s_i = 1$ **then**
    $L_{\text{add}} \leftarrow l_{T,Q}(P)$, $T \leftarrow T + Q$
    $Q, R \leftarrow PolyMulDiv(f, f, c^{-1}, L_{\text{dbl}}, L_{\text{add}})$ ▷ Algorithm 3, add L_{*i} for each P_i, Q_i
  else if $s_i = -1$ **then**
    $L_{\text{add}} \leftarrow l_{T,-Q}(P)$, $T \leftarrow T - Q$
    $Q, R \leftarrow PolyMulDiv(f, f, c, L_{\text{dbl}}, L_{\text{add}})$ ▷ Algorithm 3, add L_{*i} for each P_i, Q_i
  end if
  $f \leftarrow R$, $\mathcal{Q}.append(Q)$, $\mathcal{R}.append(R)$
end for

Miller loop Frobenius correction
$Q_1 \leftarrow \pi_p(Q), Q_2 \leftarrow \pi_p^2(Q)$
$L_\pi \leftarrow l_{T,Q_1}(P)$
$T \leftarrow T + Q_1$
$L_{-\pi^2} \leftarrow l_{T,-Q_2}(P)$
$Q, R \leftarrow PolyMulDiv(f, L_\pi, L_{-\pi^2})$ ▷ Algorithm 3, add L_{*i} for each P_i, Q_i
$f \leftarrow R$, $\mathcal{Q}.append(Q)$, $\mathcal{R}.append(R)$

Final exponentiation: Cubic scaling + Frobenius mappings
if $w = 0$ **then**
  $Q, R \leftarrow PolyMulDiv(f, c^{-q}, c^{q^2}, c^{-q^3})$ ▷ Algorithm 3
else if $w = 1$ **then**
  $Q, R \leftarrow PolyMulDiv(f, W, c^{-q}, c^{q^2}, c^{-q^3})$ ▷ Algorithm 3
else if $w = 2$ **then**
  $Q, R \leftarrow PolyMulDiv(f, W^2, c^{-q}, c^{q^2}, c^{-q^3})$ ▷ Algorithm 3
end if
$\mathcal{Q}.append(Q)$, $\mathcal{R}.append(R)$ ▷ Final $\mathcal{Q}$ and $\mathcal{R}$ accumulation, skip f

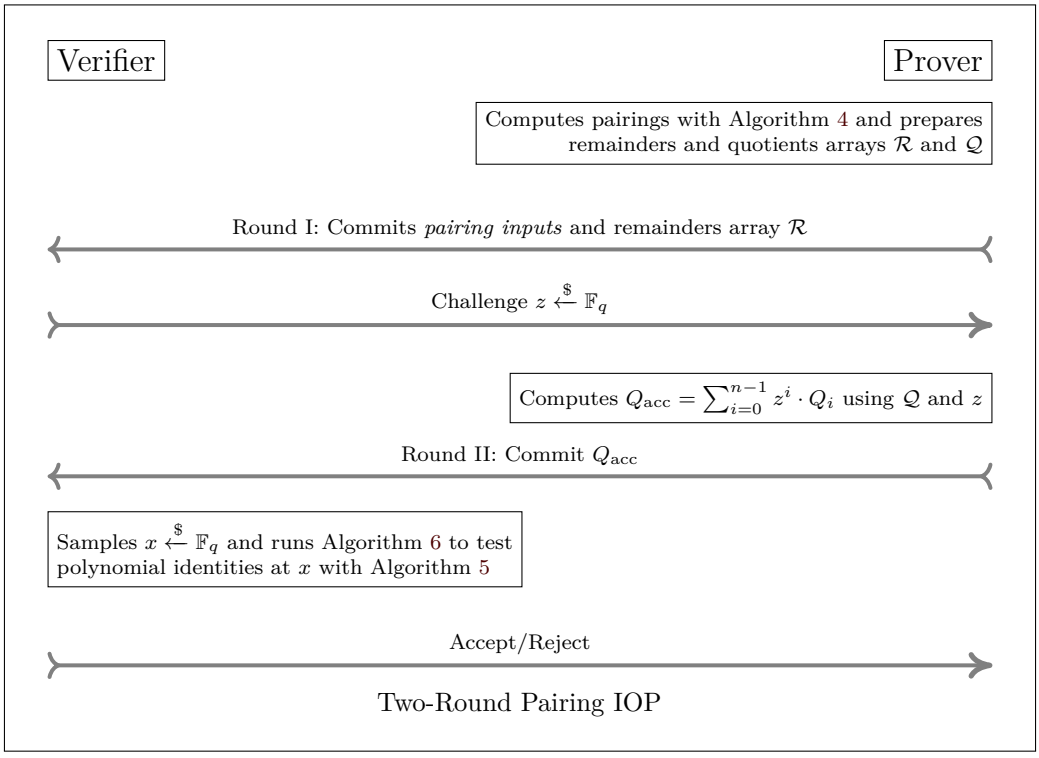
return $\mathcal{Q}, \mathcal{R}$

Algorithm 5 EvalPoly: Evaluate polynomial product minus remainder via Horner's method

Input: Polynomials $P_1, \ldots, P_n$, $R \in \mathbb{F}_q[x]$ of degree $\leq d$, evaluation point $z \in \mathbb{F}_q$
Output: $e \in \mathbb{F}_q$ where $e = \prod_{i=1}^{n} P_i(z) - R(z)$

function `Eval` $(P = (p_0, p_1, \ldots, p_d),\ z)$: **return** $(evaluation \in \mathbb{F}_q)$
    Uses Horner's method, body not included for brevity
$e \leftarrow \textsc{Eval}(P_1, z)$ ▷ Evaluate first polynomial
for $i = 2$ to n **do**
    $e \leftarrow e \cdot \textsc{Eval}(P_i, z)$ ▷ Multiply in each subsequent evaluation
end for
$e \leftarrow e - \textsc{Eval}(R, z)$ ▷ Subtract remainder evaluation
return e

5.4 Interactive Proof



5.5 Fiat-Shamir Transformation

Applying the Fiat-Shamir transformation [FS87] with random oracle H gives a non-interactive proof with knowledge soundness $\delta_s + 3(m^2+1)2^{-\lambda}$ [BSCS16], where $m = 2$ (hash queries) and $\lambda = 254$ (BN254 hash output length).

Gnark's multi-commitment mechanism. In gnark, each `api.Commit` call registers committed variables in the constraint system; the two sequential calls in our protocol produce the two challenges z and x via gnark's multi-round commitment scheme [BSB, BSB23].

Algorithm 6 Pairing Verifier: Evaluating remainders

Input: $P \in \mathbb{G}_1, Q \in \mathbb{G}_2, c \in \mathbb{F}_{q^{12}}, w \in \{0,1,2\}$, $\mathcal{R}$ array of remainders, $Q_{\text{acc}} \in \mathbb{F}_q[x]$

Internal: 27th root of unity, $W, W^2 \in \mathbb{F}_{q^{12}}$, first round challenge, $z \xleftarrow{\$} \mathbb{F}_q$

Output: $pairing(P,Q) \stackrel{?}{=} 1$

Write $s = 6t+2 = \sum_{i=0}^{L-1} s_i 2^i$ where $s_i \in \{-1,0,1\}$ and $s_L = 1$

$c^{-1} \leftarrow 1/c$ ▷ Inverse Residue witness

$f \leftarrow c^{-1}$ ▷ Initialize with inverse residue witness

$T \leftarrow Q$ ▷ T_i for each pair for multi-pairing

$x \xleftarrow{\$} \mathbb{F}_q$ ▷ Sample evaluation point from field

$e_{\text{acc}} \leftarrow 0$, $a_{\text{rlc}} \leftarrow 1$ ▷ Evaluation accumulator and random linear combination multiplier

Every operation involving T, P or Q is repeated for T_i, P_i and Q_i for multi-pairing.

Miller loop bits

for $i = L-2$ to 0 **do**

  $L_{\text{dbl}} \leftarrow l_{T,T}(P)$, $T \leftarrow [2]T$

  $R \leftarrow \mathcal{R}.pop\_front()$ ▷ Fetch R from prover

  if $s_i = 0$ **then**

    $e_{\text{acc}} \leftarrow e_{\text{acc}} + a_{\text{rlc}} * EvalPoly(R, x, f, f, L_{\text{dbl}})$ ▷ Algo 5, add L_{*i} for each P_i, Q_i

  else if $s_i = 1$ **then**

    $L_{\text{add}} \leftarrow l_{T,Q}(P)$, $T \leftarrow T + Q$

    $e_{\text{acc}} \leftarrow e_{\text{acc}} + a_{\text{rlc}} * EvalPoly(R, x, f, f, c^{-1}, L_{\text{dbl}}, L_{\text{add}})$ ▷ Algo 5, add L_{*i} for each P_i, Q_i

  else if $s_i = -1$ **then**

    $L_{\text{add}} \leftarrow l_{T,-Q}(P)$, $T \leftarrow T - Q$

    $e_{\text{acc}} \leftarrow e_{\text{acc}} + a_{\text{rlc}} * EvalPoly(R, x, f, f, c, L_{\text{dbl}}, L_{\text{add}})$ ▷ Algo 5, add L_{*i} for each P_i, Q_i

  end if

  $f \leftarrow R$, $a_{\text{rlc}} \leftarrow a_{\text{rlc}} \cdot z$ ▷ Update random linear combination factor

end for

Miller loop Frobenius correction

$R \leftarrow \mathcal{R}.pop\_front()$ ▷ Fetch R from prover

$Q_1 \leftarrow \pi_p(Q), Q_2 \leftarrow \pi_p^2(Q)$

$L_\pi \leftarrow l_{T,Q_1}(P)$

$T \leftarrow T + Q_1$

$L_{-\pi^2} \leftarrow l_{T,-Q_2}(P)$

$e_{\text{acc}} \leftarrow e_{\text{acc}} + a_{\text{rlc}} * EvalPoly(R, x, f, L_\pi, L_{-\pi^2})$ ▷ Algo 5, add L_{*i} for each P_i, Q_i

$f \leftarrow R$, $a_{\text{rlc}} \leftarrow a_{\text{rlc}} \cdot z$ ▷ Update random linear combination factor

Final exponentiation: Cubic scaling + Frobenius mappings

$R \leftarrow \mathcal{R}.pop\_front()$ ▷ Fetch R from prover

if $w = 0$ **then**

  $e_{\text{acc}} \leftarrow e_{\text{acc}} + a_{\text{rlc}} * EvalPoly(R, x, f, c^{-q}, c^{q^2}, c^{-q^3})$ ▷ Algo 5

else if $w = 1$ **then**

  $e_{\text{acc}} \leftarrow e_{\text{acc}} + a_{\text{rlc}} * EvalPoly(R, x, f, W, c^{-q}, c^{q^2}, c^{-q^3})$ ▷ Algo 5

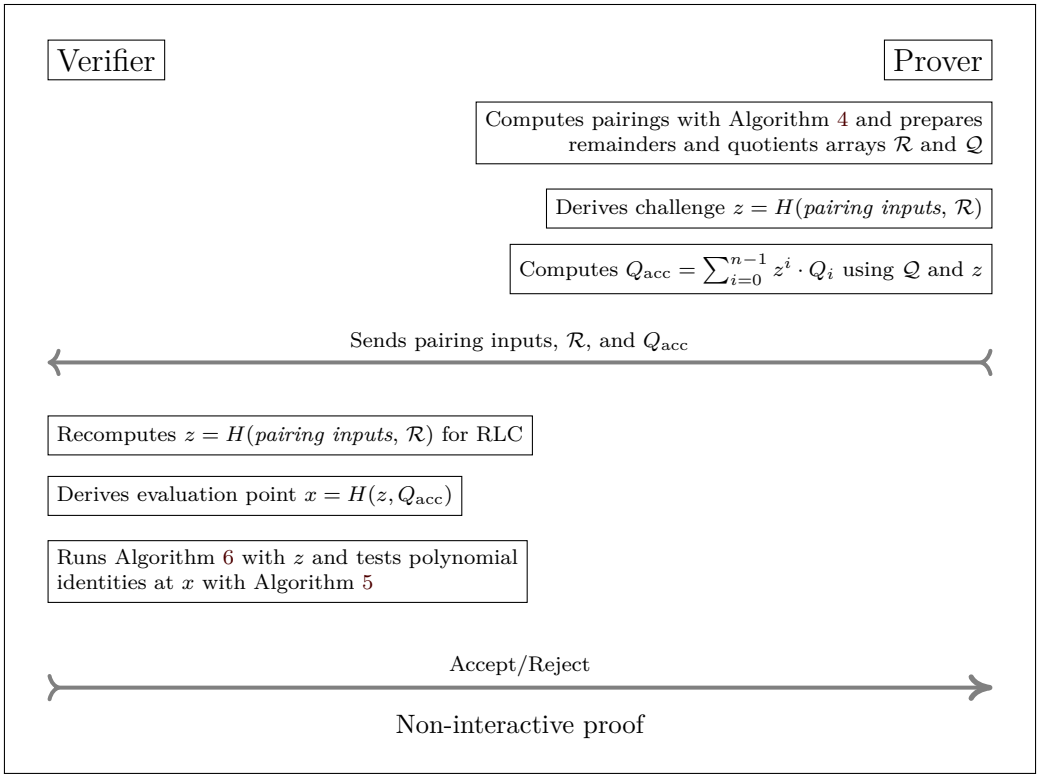
else if $w = 2$ **then**

  $e_{\text{acc}} \leftarrow e_{\text{acc}} + a_{\text{rlc}} * EvalPoly(R, x, f, W^2, c^{-q}, c^{q^2}, c^{-q^3})$ ▷ Algo 5

end if

return $Q_{\text{acc}}(x) \stackrel{?}{=} e_{\text{acc}} \wedge R \stackrel{?}{=} 1$ ▷ Polynomial identity and expected pairing output check

5.6 Non-Interactive Proof



Concrete commitment costs: In gnark, each call to `api.Commit` registers committed variables in the constraint system; the precise prover overhead depends on the backend (Groth16 or Plonk) [BSB, BSB23].

5.7 Security Analysis

Throughout this section, $z, x \in \mathbb{F}_q$ denote field element challenges (scalars), while polynomials are elements of $\mathbb{F}_q[x]$ with x as the formal indeterminate. In particular, z^j is a scalar coefficient, not a polynomial term.

5.7.1 Algebraic Intuition

Before the formal soundness proof it is instructive to consider why an incorrect remainder is difficult to hide. Suppose a malicious prover corrupts exactly one remainder: $R'_j = R_j + \Delta_j$ with $\Delta_j \in \mathbb{F}_q[x]$, $\Delta_j \neq 0$, $\deg(\Delta_j) \leq 11$. Since z is obtained *after* the commitment to $\mathcal{R}$, the prover cannot adjust any other R_k to compensate for Δ_j. To successfully deceive the verifier, the prover must find a valid forged quotient $Q'_{\text{acc}} \in \mathbb{F}_q[x]$ satisfying

$$\sum_{i=0}^{n-1} z^i (A_i - R'_i) = Q'_{\text{acc}} \cdot P_{12}$$

All $R'_i = R_i$ except for $R'_j = R_j + \Delta_j$. Substituting $R'_j = R_j + \Delta_j$ gives

$$Q'_{\text{acc}} \cdot P_{12} = Q_{\text{acc}} \cdot P_{12} - z^j \Delta_j(x)$$

$$Q'_{\text{acc}} = Q_{\text{acc}} - \frac{z^j \Delta_j(x)}{P_{12}(x)}.$$

Here $z^j \in \mathbb{F}_q$ is a nonzero scalar (with overwhelming probability over the choice of z) and $\Delta_j(x) \in \mathbb{F}_q[x]$ is a nonzero polynomial of degree at most 11. Since P_{12} is irreducible of degree 12 and $\deg(z^j\Delta_j) \le 11 < 12 = \deg(P_{12})$, the polynomial P_{12} does not divide $z^j\Delta_j$ in $\mathbb{F}_q[x]$; hence $z^j\Delta_j/P_{12}$ is not a polynomial. Consequently no valid $Q'_{\text{acc}} \in \mathbb{F}_q[x]$ can satisfy the equation for this single-corruption case.

The same degree argument extends immediately to an adversary who corrupts *multiple* remainders: for any scalar z, the weighted sum $\sum_i z^i\Delta_i(x)$ is still a polynomial in x of degree at most 11 (since each z^i is a scalar and each $\deg(\Delta_i) \le 11$), so it cannot be divisible by P_{12} of degree 12 unless it is the zero polynomial, which requires every $\Delta_i = 0$. The formal soundness proof below re-derives this uniformly via Schwartz-Zippel.

5.7.2 Soundness

Theorem 1 (Soundness)**.** *Let n be the number of polynomial equations batched via a random linear combination into the bivariate polynomial identity:*

$$P_{\text{final}}(z,x) = \sum_{i=0}^{n-1} z^i \cdot \Big[\prod_j P_{i,j}(x) - R_i(x)\Big] - Q_{\text{acc}}(x)\cdot P_{12}(x) = 0$$

Let the maximum degree in x of the polynomial products be $d_x < 2^8$. For a prover committing to incorrect remainders, the probability of successful forgery δ_s over randomly chosen $(z,x) \in \mathbb{F}_q^2$ is bounded by:

$$\delta_s \le \frac{n-1+d_x}{|\mathbb{F}_q|}$$

Proof. If the prover commits to an incorrect remainder $R_i(x)$, the evaluation yields a non-zero error polynomial $P_{\text{err}}(z,x)$. The structure of $P_{\text{final}}(z,x)$ establishes the following degree bounds for $P_{\text{err}}(z,x)$:

- **Degree in z:** at most $n-1$ (due to the z^i weighting).
- **Degree in x:** at most $d_x < 2^8$ (due to the polynomial products).

By the Schwartz-Zippel lemma, the probability that the non-zero polynomial P_{err} evaluates to zero is bounded by the total degree divided by the field size:

$$\Pr[P_{\text{err}}(z,x) = 0] \le \frac{\deg_z(P_{\text{err}}) + \deg_x(P_{\text{err}})}{|\mathbb{F}_q|} \le \frac{n-1+d_x}{|\mathbb{F}_q|}$$

□

Concrete parameters for BN254: With $n = 67$ equations and $d_x \le 256$:

$$\delta_s \le \frac{66+256}{2^{254}} < \frac{2^9}{2^{254}} = 2^{-245}.$$

Non-interactive proof via Fiat-Shamir : From Section 5.5, under the random oracle model the knowledge soundness error becomes [BSCS16]:

$$\delta'_s = \delta_s + 3(m^2+1)\cdot 2^{-\lambda}$$

where $m = 2$ (hash queries) and $\lambda = 254$ (hash output length), giving

$$\delta'_s \le 2^{-245} + 15\cdot 2^{-254} < 2^{-244}.$$

Remark 1 (Correctness of polynomial evaluation). Theorem 1 assumes that the verifier evaluates all polynomials at the challenge point x without arithmetic error. The circuit implementation uses the deferred-reduction inner-product optimisation of Section 6.5 (Section 6.5.1), which accumulates limb-wise products over $\mathbb{Z}$ before a single final reduction. Correctness of this optimisation requires that no intermediate limb value reaches the native field characteristic p. We verify this bound concretely for BN254 in Lemma 1 (Section 6.5.1).

5.7.3 Completeness

For an honest prover executing Algorithm 4 with valid inputs:

1. **Polynomial construction**: At each operation, the prover computes following polynomials:
$$\prod_j P_{i,j} = Q_i \cdot P_{12} + R_i$$
2. **RLC formation**: Given challenge z, the prover forms:
$$Q_{\text{acc}} = \sum_{i=0}^{n-1} z^i \cdot Q_i$$
3. **Verifier's check**: The verifier evaluates at point x:
$$\begin{aligned} \text{LHS} &= \sum_{i=0}^{n-1} z^i \cdot \left[\prod_j P_{i,j}(x) - R_i(x) \right] \\ &= \sum_{i=0}^{n-1} z^i \cdot Q_i(x) \cdot P_{12}(x) \quad \text{(by construction)} \\ &= P_{12}(x) \cdot \sum_{i=0}^{n-1} z^i \cdot Q_i(x) \\ &= P_{12}(x) \cdot Q_{\text{acc}}(x) = \text{RHS} \end{aligned}$$

Since the equality holds for any evaluation point x, the protocol satisfies perfect completeness.

6 Polynomial Ring Toolkit

The protocol of Section 5 is packaged as a reusable toolkit in the `emulated` package of gnark [Conb], parameterised by any emulated field $\mathbb{F}_q$ (via `FieldParams` type T) and any modulus polynomial $P \in \mathbb{F}_q[x]$. The toolkit operates in a recursive proof setting where the prover's computations are performed outside the circuit via `hints` (Section 6.2). And verifier's checks are implemented as constraints inside the circuit.

Refer to our fork at https://anonymous.4open.science/r/tiny-gnark-DDCD for code.

6.1 Ring Representation

A ring element is essentially a coefficient slice `[]*Element[T]` in ascending degree order. A `nil` entry is treated as zero by `InnerProductNoReduce`—the term is skipped entirely—so sparse polynomials carry no wasted constraint variables.

The optional `modEvalFn` of type `EvalFnType[T]` $= ([$`*Element[T]`$]) \to$ `*Element[T]` allows handling small-integer coefficients efficiently by multiplying by the small positive integer first and negating afterwards, rather than multiplying by the full-width field representative $q - c$.

Example: BN254 $\mathbb{F}_{p^{12}}$

$P_{12}(x) = x^{12} - 18x^6 + 82$ has nine zero coefficients (stored as `nil`) and two small non-zero ones. The `modEvalFn` computes $P_{12}(\alpha) =$ `MulConst`$(\alpha^0, 82) +$ `Neg`$($`MulConst`$(\alpha^6, 18)) + \alpha^{12}$, keeping intermediate values small instead of multiplying by $q - 18$.

6.2 Hint Functions

Hints allow defining computations outside of a circuit. A hint defines an annotated function in the circuit at compile time. Inputs and outputs are injected at the solving time. We define these two hints to implement the prover's steps in the two-round protocol of Section 5.4.

`polyRingMulHint` implements PolyMulDiv (Algorithm 3): it multiplies the input polynomials, divides by P to obtain (Q, R), and serialises the result as `nbQTerms` | Q limbs | `nbRemTerms` | R limbs. Inputs are packed as `nbBits` | `nbLimbs` | `nbPoly` | q | inputs | P, where each polynomial is prefixed by its term count.

`quotientsRLCHint` computes the accumulated quotient $Q_{\text{acc}}[j] = \sum_i z^i \cdot Q_i[j] \bmod q$ coefficient-wise, corresponding to the prover's step in Algorithm 4.

6.3 API

The toolkit exposes three entry points. `NewPolyRingCheck` registers a ring group (modulus P plus an optional small-coefficient evaluator) and returns a handle shared by every multiplication under that modulus; multiple groups with different moduli may coexist. `MulPolyRings` computes $R = (\prod_j A_j) \bmod P$ outside the circuit via `polyRingMulHint`, range-checks R's limbs inside, and enqueues the check $(A_j; R; Q)$ in the group; for longer product chains a `PolyRingAccumulator` wrapper automatically triggers intermediate reductions when the accumulated degree exceeds a configurable bound. At circuit finalisation, `performDeferredRingChecks` implements Equation (5) via two sequential `api.Commit` calls [BSB] (producing challenges z and x) and one `AssertIsEqual` per group, so no in-circuit work beyond remainder range-checks is performed until this point. Full API signatures and a step-by-step code walkthrough are available in the repository.[2]

6.4 Usage

Core API

Register the ring group once at initialisation:

```
fp, _ := emulated.NewField[emulated.BN254Fp](api)
modPoly := fp.MakePoly([]any{82, 0, 0, 0, 0, 0, -18, 0, 0, 0, 0, 0, 1})
ring := fp.NewPolyRingCheck(modPoly, nil)
// Each Miller-loop step then calls:
rem, _ = f.MulPolyRings(ring, f, f, L1, L2, L3)
```

[2] https://anonymous.4open.science/r/tiny-gnark-DDCD

and `performDeferredRingChecks` is invoked once by the gnark backend at finalisation, running the full two-round protocol of Section 5.

Accumulate a product chain

```
acc := f.NewPolyRingAccumulator(group, targetDeg)
acc.Mul(A)
acc.Mul(B)
acc.Sqr()       // enqueues (A·B)² without multiplying yet
rem := acc.Eval()
```

6.5 Implementation Details and Performance

6.5.1 Schoolbook vs Horner's Method for Polynomial Evaluation

Horner's method for evaluations across emulated elements causes a linear increase in the limbs count per coefficient. This necessitates reductions after each multiplication. Instead, we cache powers of the evaluation point x in $\mathcal{X} = (x^0, x^1, \ldots, x^d)$ and evaluate each polynomial as an inner product of $\mathcal{X}$ and the coefficient array $\mathbf{F}$:

$$\mathcal{X} \cdot \mathbf{F} = \mathcal{X}_0 \cdot F_0 + \mathcal{X}_1 \cdot F_1 + \cdots + \mathcal{X}_d \cdot F_d$$

In the emulated field context, Eval in Algorithm 5 is replaced by this inner product with $\mathcal{X}$. This allows us to use the inner product optimization described below.

6.5.2 Native field operations for inner products

Modular reductions can be deferred or entirely elided for operations expressible as inner products, such as polynomial evaluations and random linear combinations. This optimization leverages the capacity headroom provided by representing small emulated limbs (e.g., 64-bit limbs) within a significantly larger native field element.

Deferred Reduction: Intermediate scalars are permitted to grow over the integers $\mathbb{Z}$ during limb-wise multiplications and linear accumulations.

Preservation of Identity: Algebraic identities are strictly preserved provided the maximum accumulated limb magnitude remains bounded below the native characteristic p.

Handling Asymmetry: In circuits with asymmetric multiplicative depths, operands may accumulate as disparate polynomial multiples of the emulated characteristic p_{emul}. Consequently, a terminal single-element reduction suffices for equivalence testing, bypassing the constraint overhead of intermediate normalization.

Lemma 1 (Overflow safety for deferred reduction)**.** *Let $\mathbb{F}_q$ be emulated with limbs of width b bits inside a native field $\mathbb{F}_p$. Consider evaluating a degree-d polynomial via an inner product over the cached power vector $\mathcal{X}$. Since limbs are accumulated independently, each result-limb is a sum of $d+1$ products of two b-bit values, so its magnitude is bounded by $\beta = 2^{2b+\lceil \log_2(d+1) \rceil}$.*

The deferred single-element reduction is safe whenever $\beta < \log_2 p$.

Corollary 1 (BN254 pairing instantiation)**.** *For BN254 pairing verification: $b = 64$, $d \leq 256$, and $p \approx 2^{254}$. Then*

$$\beta \;=\; 2 \cdot 64 + \lceil \log_2 257 \rceil \;=\; 128 + 9 \;=\; 137 \;<\; 254,$$

so the deferred reduction is safe.

Table 6: Performance improvements in Garaga: Cairo implementation on Starknet

MULMOD		ADDMOD		COMMITS		VM STEPS	
Before	After	Before	After	Before	After	Before	After
BN254: 3-Pairing with Miller loop and final exponentiation							
19,142	12,656	21,686	15,142	5,689	2,807	338,678	212,902
33.9%		**30.2%**		**50.7%**		**37.1%**	
BLS12–381: 3-Pairing with Miller loop and final exponentiation							
16,484	11,287	20,669	15,420	5,421	3,167	325,757	219,155
31.5%		**25.4%**		**41.6%**		**32.7%**	

MULMOD/ADDMOD: Field operations in $\mathbb{F}_p$ via built-in function calls
COMMITS: Use transaction calldata and Poseidon hash operations for Fiat-Shamir
VM STEPS: CairoVM Steps [Sta22] (CPU Cycles)

7 Conclusion

We have shown that choosing the right granularity for polynomial identity testing—entire Miller loop steps rather than individual field multiplications—yields substantial and measurable improvements in arithmetized pairing verification. The key technique, collapsing a composite multi-operand product into a single Euclidean division check with batched quotient accumulation, is simple to implement and broadly applicable to other multi-step cryptographic computations in arithmetized environments.

7.1 Applications and Impact

Our approach delivers maximum impact in resource-constrained execution environments where custom auxiliary data can be provided for cheaper verification. **Recursive proof systems** benefit the most greatly reducing outer circuit complexity from fewer commitments and operations. **ZKVMs** (RISC Zero, SP1, Jolt) benefit naturally as they express computation as constraint systems compatible with our polynomial framework. **Calldata-constrained blockchains** (Ethereum L2s, BitVM) also benefit, as fewer commitments means smaller proof transcripts and associated calldata costs.

This is already implemented in-production in Garaga [FE] for CairoVM and is currently the standard for all pairing based ZK proofs on Starknet. The polynomial ring toolkit 6 in gnark, submitted as a part of this work, will directly impact `evmprecompiles/ecpair` precompile via `AssertMillerLoopAndFinalExpIsOne`.

7.2 Implementation and Performance

The Garaga library [FE] provided an earlier proof of concept for this technique in Cairo/Starknet (2024). The resulting reductions in commitment overhead and modulo operations (Table 6) were sufficient to fit Groth16 proof verification within Starknet's transaction limits for the first time. However, Cairo [Sta22] is a specialized environment with its own cost metrics, making direct comparison with mainstream ZK frameworks difficult. This work situates the same technique within gnark—the standard framework for field emulation in arithmetized circuits—providing a systematic benchmark against an industry baseline.

Table 7 presents benchmark results from our gnark implementation of the polynomial ring toolkit, measured on a Groth16 verification simulation on BN254. The end-to-end results confirm both directions of saving: **39% SCS constraint reduction** (1,890,771 → 1,158,194) and **60% commitment reduction** (739,198 → 295,946), with strong secondary improvements across compile-time memory (∼42–43%) and solver memory (∼26% SCS, ∼52% R1CS).

Table 7: Performance comparison: gnark implementation, Groth16 simulation on BN254 (2 fixed-point pairings + 1 full pairing + 1 $\mathbb{F}_{p^{12}}$ mul)

Metric	gnark Baseline	This Work	Reduction
SCS (Plonkish) Constraint System			
Nb Constraints	1,890,771	1,158,194	**38.7%**
Nb Commitments	739,198	295,946	**60.0%**
Compile Time	775.64 ms	406.71 ms	**47.6%**
Compile Memory	1.77 GB	1.03 GB	**41.8%**
Solve Time	479.61 ms	356.42 ms	**25.7%**
Solve Memory	510.36 MB	376.57 MB	**26.2%**
R1CS Constraint System			
Nb Constraints	588,013	353,881	**39.8%**
Nb Commitments	739,198	295,946	**60.0%**
Compile Time	780.40 ms	423.09 ms	**45.8%**
Compile Memory	2.09 GB	1.19 GB	**43.1%**
Solve Time	320.84 ms	214.73 ms	**33.1%**
Solve Memory	330.54 MB	158.51 MB	**52.0%**

Commitments: Fiat-Shamir `api.Commit` calls. Hardware: Apple M3 Pro (`goarch:arm64`).
Circuit benchmarked: https://archive.org/download/ppprt_groth16_simulation_test
Our implementation: https://anonymous.4open.science/r/tiny-gnark-DDCD/

Benchmark circuit. Both implementations are evaluated against the same gnark circuit[3],

Step 1: A 2-pair fixed-$\mathbb{G}_2$ pairing check $e(P_1, Q_1) \cdot e(P_2, Q_2) = 1$, where both $\mathbb{G}_2$ points use precomputed line evaluations (`PairingCheck` with fixed Q).

Step 2: A single in-circuit Miller loop $\mathrm{ML}(P_3, Q_3)$ combined with a Miller loop result f computed *outside* the circuit, followed by a final-exponentiation-equals-one assertion (`AssertMillerLoopAndFinalExpIsOne`).

This structure simulates constraints for a real Groth16 verification: the two fixed-$\mathbb{G}_2$ pairings, one full pairing, and one $\mathbb{F}_{p^{12}}$ multiplication. These recreate the four pairing operations with fixed trusted setup points.

The gnark baseline numbers were obtained by running the benchmark function against the upstream gnark `emulated` package (`github.com/consensys/gnark`). The **This Work** numbers were obtained from the same benchmark file compiled against our fork, which replaces the per-multiplication deferred checks in the `emulated` package with the polynomial ring toolkit described in this paper. No changes to the circuit definition or test harness were required; only the underlying `emulated` arithmetic backend differs between the two runs.

7.3 Further Work

Several natural extensions of this work remain open. First, our framework could be extended to additional curves: **BLS12–381** for applications requiring higher security than BN254, and **BW6–761** for recursive proof chain verification on Ethereum.

A further direction is exploring the technique for native field pairings, such as BLS12–377 inside BW6–761 [Hou23] scalar fields, where the trade-off between batching savings and commitment costs warrants dedicated analysis.

Rather than targeting a specific pairing, we designed this as a general polynomial ring toolkit, which opens additional avenues for exploration. One promising direction is larger batches that fold multiple Miller loop steps into a single polynomial verification. This

[3]Circuit definition: https://archive.org/download/ppprt_groth16_simulation_test

strategy works well in Garaga implementation. But is not pursued in our implementation because in Gnark implementation polynomial evaluations are cheap, while the extra evaluation challenge powers required to handle degree doubling from cross-step squarings require in place reductions. Finally, the underlying technique generalizes beyond pairings to any setting involving repeated operations over the same polynomial rings in arithmetized environments.

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